Linux Sysadmin/Security Basics

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Linux Basics Unit

DISCLAIMER: The following 8 slides will be boring, but they provide a needed foundation before we get to the fun parts of Linux, and how computers actually work!

Linux Basics: What is Linux?

Linux is the dominant FOSS (Free and Open Source) OS (Operating System) kernel.

A kernel is the core of an operating system that directly interacts with hardware (think drivers, memory allocation, etc)

The rest of Linux (commands, base applications) is made mostly by the GNU Project (there is some history of how/why it is this way).

Linux is primarily used to power the VAST majority of the internet (servers), all top 500 supercomputers, embedded devices, and is growing in desktop use.

Basics of the terminal (and POSIX)

The terminal is the center of typical Linux systems. Basic commands are provided by the GNU coreutils project (ls, rm, cd, touch, etc). You can do ANYTHING with a terminal; standard desktop apps use terminal commands in the background to do tasks anyways.

With the terminal you can:

- Edit system config files
- Code
- Manage Files
- Service management
- Any anything else

What is Linux (cont.)?

Linux differs significantly from other operating systems (such as Microsoft Windows) in its adoption of UNIX standards and norms, such as:

- Everything is a file
- POSIX Compliance (somewhat)
- Unix philosophy (do one thing and do it well)
- Command line centricity

NOTE: Unix was an operating system invented in 1969 at AT&T Bell Labs. Because they did not have a graphical user interface (they used teletypes that printed on paper, like a command line but on paper), efficient terminal based ways to interact with the system were created.

Basics of the terminal (and POSIX) (cont.)

The way you edit files, issue commands, etc is standard (for the most part) across unix like operating systems (Linux, MacOS, BSD, etc) is mandated by the POSIX standard.

This mandates commands like:

- “rm” command, for removing files and folders
- “touch” command for making new files
- “mkdir” command for making new folders (called directories)
- “ls” for listing the contents of the folder you are in
- “cd” for changing to a new folder (stands for change directory)

It also mandates other factors of the operating system, such as the filesystem:

- Folders are organized like so (if folder 2 is inside folder 1): folder1/folder2
- The root of the filesystem is mounted at /

Disclaimer #2 & #3

#2: This will make sense later, but Linux is not fully POSIX compliant, and POSIX does not mandate everything unique about it. Factors such as much of the file system, the “everything is a file” mentality, etc, is inherited from UNIX (Linux is a UNIX Like OS).

#3: Don’t worry if some of the above language doesn’t make sense to you. It will once we start going over the fun parts!

Everything is a file!

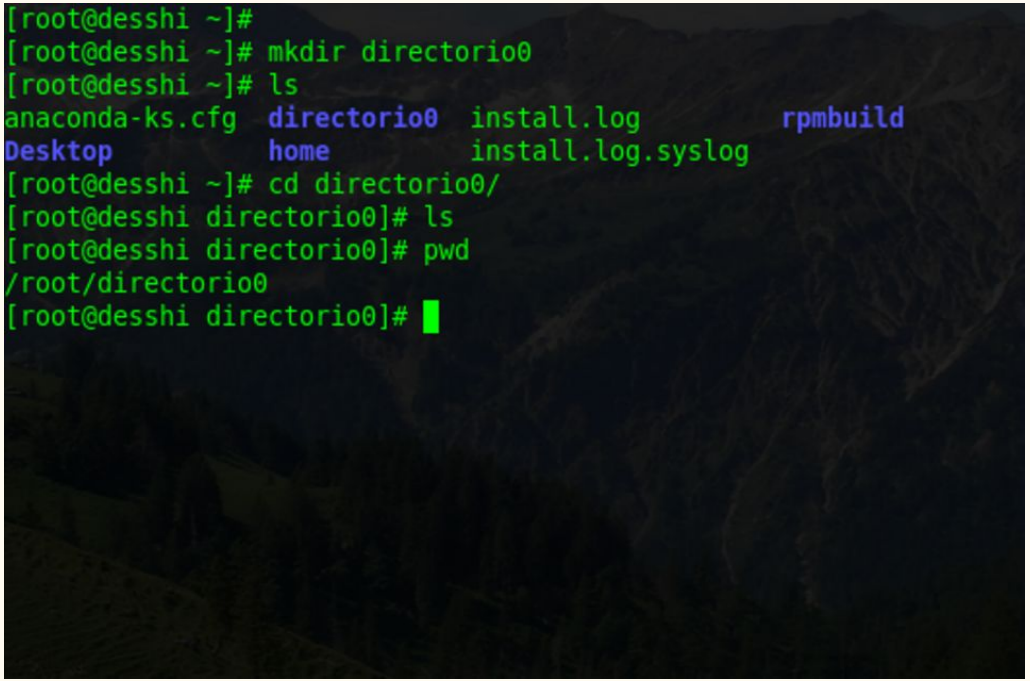
In unix-like operating systems (Linux included), everything is a file! Want to edit settings? Open a configuration file! Want to launch an app? Launch a file!

The following things are represented as files in Linux:

- Applications
- Settings (configuration files)
- System services (depending on your system's init system)
- Drives (hard drives, SSD's, flash drives, floppy driver, etc!)
- And more niche things that we'll go over later

A general overview of the terminal.

This is what a terminal looks like:



NOTE: It does not NECESSARILY look that much like a hacking movie, but this one does with its colors.

The things typed (“ls”, “pwd”, “cd directorio0”) are commands.

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A general overview of the terminal (cont.)

Here are some example of terminal commands to get a grasp of what interacting with a terminal looks like:

“pwd”: Prints your current working directory. Remember, directories are folders. So, basically, this command prints the current folder your terminal is in.

“ls”: Lists the contents of your current working directory (the folder you are in)

For example, if I am currently in my user’s (let's call the user “sam”) home directory, my current working directory is “/home/sam”. That is the exact output I get if I type “pwd”.

If I then type “ls”, it will list all the files and folders inside /home/sam.

Finally, if I want to install firefox (a web browser), I can type the following: “sudo apt install firefox”. And it asks for my password, and just does it! No websites, click through installers, or stores required!

Distributions

There are 100s of different Linux distributions (more commonly just called distros).

This is because Linux by itself is not an operating system, it is just a kernel.

Different Linux distributions have different package managers (ways of installing apps), different desktops, init systems, etc.

We will be using the Linux distribution called Debian (and other Linux distributions that were made from debian, also called distributions based on Debian or a Debian derivative).

Debian is not based on any other Linux distribution, and is one of the oldest Linux distros (first released in Sept. 1993). Other distributions that are not based on another are: Slackware (oldest), Gentoo, Void, Arch, openSUSE, Alpine, among other more niche ones.

So what?

All of this is a lot of conceptual information, but as of now it isn’t connected to anything/doesn’t seem to matter.

All of these command line things about Linux make it fun to use, and certainly faster than other computers. I know it looks boring right now, but I PROMISE it isn’t.

Linux Basics Unit done!

Now that you know what makes a Linux system different, lets go over learning commands. We will learn A LOT of them (mostly specific to Debian based distributions).

These will include:

- Basic terminal navigation and files
- Users
- Package Management
- Service Management
- Networks (NEW)
- PAM
- And other relevant Linux-y things throughout this mini course!

P.S: This is where the more fun stuff begins!

File System/Terminal Navigation Unit

File System Basics

Directory: another word for a folder

A linux filesystem has a specific structure. The drive itself has a folder name (called a path or directory) of “/”. From there, there are other directories such as “/etc” or “/bin”. Each user account is stored in the “/home” directory. The main directory for a user “sam” would be “/home/sam/”.

Basic Terminal Navigation/File System Basics

When you are in a terminal, you are always in a certain directory.

By default (when you first open the terminal), it is the home directory of the user you are signed into (/home/{username}).

The directory you are in is called your working directory.

To print your current directory, use the “pwd” command.

“ls” command: Basic Terminal Navigation/File System Basics

To list the contents of your working directory, use the “ls” command, with nothing after it.

For example, if I am in my users home directory, and I want to see the contents of it, I type “ls”.

If you include a directory name after “ls”, it will list the contents of that directory.

For example, if I am in my home directory, and I want to see the contents of the Downloads directory, I will type “ls Downloads”. Pretty simple, right?

“cd” command: Basic Terminal Navigation/File System Basics

To switch into another directory, use the “cd” command.

For example, if I am in my home folder (/home/sam), and I want to go to the “Downloads” folder, I type “cd Downloads”. My new working directory is /home/sam/Downloads.

Now that I am in that Downloads folder, if I want to go back to the folder above it, I can type “cd ..”. Now my working directory is /home/sam again.

“touch” & “mkdir” commands: Basic Terminal Navigation/File System Basics

These two commands can be used to make new files and folders.

“mkdir” stands for make directory. If I am in my home folder and want to make a folder called “projects”, I will type: “mkdir projects”.

If I want to make a directory inside projects called “python”, I can either type from my home folder: “mkdir projects/python” OR cd into projects and type “mkdir python”.

“touch” is used to make new files. For example, if inside my projects/python directory I want to make a text file called “readme.txt”, I will type “touch readme.txt”. If I wanted to make this file from my home folder, I would type “touch projects/python/readme.txt”.

“rm” command: Basic Terminal Navigation/File System Basics

The “rm” command can be used to remove files AND folders.

If I am in my projects/python directory and I want to remove readme.txt, I would type “rm readme.txt” OR (if I wanted to do it from my home directory) I would type “rm projects/python/readme.txt”.

If I am in my projects folder and want to delete the python folder inside of it, I would type “rm -rf python” (or from my home directory: “rm -rf projects/python”). (NOTE: This will nuke everything that was inside that folder. You WILL NOT be able to get it back. There is no trash can in the terminal!

“mv” command: Basic Terminal Navigation/File System Basics

The “mv” command stands for move, and it can be used to move one directory or file into another.

Syntax is: “mv {file or folder to be moved} {directory to move the new file or folder into}”

If I am in my home folder and have a file called “config.conf”, and want to move it into my “.config” folder, I would type “mv config.conf .config/”

“cp” command: Basic Terminal Navigation/File System Basics

The “cp” command stands for copy.

If I have a file called config.conf and I want to copy it into my .config folder, I would type: “cp config.conf .config/”

If I have a folder called Downloads with files in it, and I want to copy it (and call the new copy Downloads_copy), I would type “cp -r Downloads/ Downloads_copy/”.

The “-r” is called a command flag, and stands for recursive. That means it will copy folders and EVERYTHING inside the folders.

Package Management Unit

“apt” and what is a package manager?

We are primarily concerned with debian based Linux distributions. Once upon a time in 1999, the first version of Debian with apt was released. Think of apt as like an app store, but in the command line, and existing long before Apple created the app store (those copy cats!).

With apt, you can update your entire system, install and remove programs (we call them packages, hence the name package manager) and view which ones you have installed.

You do this with the command “apt”.

A quick intermission about “sudo”

Like many commands we run in Linux, “apt” modifies system files (files outside of your users home directory). To get permission for this, we use the “sudo” command BEFORE any command that modifies such files.

For example, if I wanted to create a file called config.txt in my systems “/” directory, I would cd into / and then type “sudo touch config.txt”.

GENERAL RULE: With anything that modifies ANYTHING outside YOUR USER’S home directory, use sudo, or you will get an error.

Sudo runs commands as root without you needing to be logged in as root (which is a security risk)

“apt” command

“apt” downloads packages from repositories. Repositories are online servers hosted by your distribution that contain all compiled packages for your distro.

Configuration for apt, including the sources for these repositories, lives in the “/etc/apt/” directory.

To update your debian system (Ubuntu is a fork of Debian, and Linux Mint is a fork of Ubuntu), type “sudo apt update” to refresh the repositories (essentially check for updates). Then, type “sudo apt upgrade” to actually update new packages.

NOTE: Because you are using sudo, you will be prompted for your password.

“apt” command (cont.)

To install a package in apt (for example, we will install the web browser firefox), type: “sudo apt install firefox”.

To remove firefox (and all of its settings in the form of config files), type “sudo apt remove --purge” (NOTE: if you do not want config files for the package to be removed, omit the purge parameter).

“apt” command (cont.)

To list the applications you have installed, type “apt list --installed”.

To see how many applications you have installed, you can pipe it into another command like so:

“apt list --installed | wc -l”. The “|” operator takes the output of one command and feeds it into another command. The wc command (word count) with the -l flag (line count) counts the number of lines in its input. Because apt outputs a new line for every app it lists, this yields the correct number.

Use the command “sudo apt autoremove” to remove any unneeded dependencies (review what is being removed first, sometimes the system tries to remove critical system components. Remember, YOU are the sysadmin, so YOU are responsible for managing the systems stability.

“apt” command (cont.)

Finally, let’s talk about configuration.

The repositories used are listed in “/etc/apt/sources.list” (or sources.list.d/{something}).

Assure there is a security or updates repository! This is distro specific and we will go over this later!

Users Unit (SHORT)

Admin vs. non-admin users

On a Linux System, the root user is the administrator.

This means that once logged in, this user can do ANYTHING without a password.

As a result, it is HIGHLY HIGHLY INSECURE to log in to a system as root, or run any application as root unless necessary (like with apt).

Regular users are all the same in Linux. However, users are apart of system groups. For example, in order to be able to run things with sudo, the user must be in group “sudo” (group is called wheel or admin on some distributions, wheel and sudo are standard).

**Remember, non-user files are any files outside of THAT SPECIFIC USERS home directory (/home/{name of user})

Managing users (A LOT of commands here)!

To make a new user, use the command: “sudo useradd (name of new user)”. This new user will not have a password, so you will need to make one.

To set a password for any user, use the command: “sudo passwd (name of user)”

To add a user to a group; “sudo usermod -aG (name of group) (name of user being added)”

To remove a user from a group: “sudo deluser (name of user) (name of group)”

To list groups a user is in: “groups (name of user)”

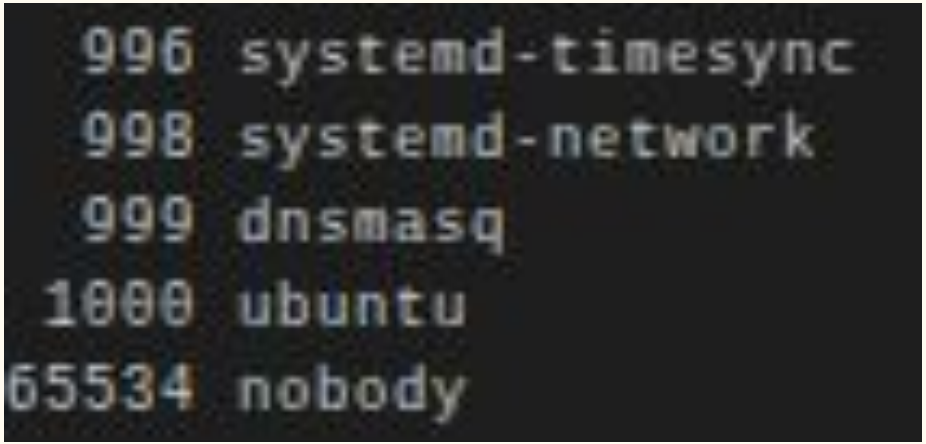
To remove a user: “sudo deluser --remove-home (name of user)”

To disable the root user: “sudo passwd -l root”

To add a user to the bash: sudo chsh -s /bin/bash {user}

Managing users (A LOT of commands here)!

To see all users on a system, use the command “lslogins”. NOTE: You will see numbers next to usernames. These are the UIDs (user id’s) of each user account. Normal accounts do not start until UID 1000, so do not worry about users with an ID lower than 1000.



Here, you only need to worry about the users “ubuntu” and “nobody” because they are above or equal to 1000.

First, a quick note about users:

In the last unit, I mentioned that we should NEVER log directly into the root account. What I forgot to mention is that we should always lock the root account to prevent it from being logged into:

“sudo passwd -l root”

Unless you need root to be logged into for a specific KNOWN circumstance, please lock the root account as so and rely on sudo for root access. If you need prolonged root access and don’t want to append “sudo” to every command, switch to the root user as so:

“sudo su”

Services Unit

What is a Linux service:

A linux service is a background program that runs automatically at a certain time.

For example, the computer's firewall runs when you turn on (boot) your computer. The firewall is a service.

A general rule of thumb is: something can be considered a service if it automatically runs (without you clicking or launching it).

Examples of services in linux:

- UFW (firewall)
- GDM (display manager. Remember, in linux, a "display manager" is your login screen)
- bluetoothd (bluetooth management)

Note: Services do NOT need to be started automatically at boot to be considered a service. You can still manually start and stop them when needed.

Init Systems!

Linux is just a kernel. By itself, it can’t spawn a desktop or login screen (or much of anything really). After the linux kernel finished booting, it launches one thing: PID (process id) 1, which is your init system (usually located at /sbin/init)

The init system is the thing that launches everything else on your system. It does so in the form of services (firewall, boot splash screen, login screen, etc).

There are several init systems available in Linux:

- Systemd (the most common by far, though it does much more than being an init system)
- Openrc (a lighter alternative to systemd)
- Runit (my personal favorite, is very simple and minimal)

Note: We will be dealing ONLY with systemd.

About Systemd specifically

Systemd does much more than managing services (with the systemctl command):

- It allows you to read logs from services with journalctl
- It allows you to schedule jobs at specific times (i.e: 5 minutes after boot) (NOTE: This functionality already exists outside of systemd with cron jobs, but with the Systemd alternative you can see logs for them with journalctl)
- Networking
- User Directory Management
- And much more (it even has its own bootloader, which is the thing that loads before Linux and tells your system to start the Linux kernel)!

Some people say it is best for integration, and some call it bloat (me) because we already have these functions (and systemd is slower, uses more ram and cpu, and slower boot time)

Managing services:

To work with services, we use the “systemctl” command

For services that run with elevated system privileges (network, firewall, etc), we use “sudo” before the systemctl command.

The syntax is: (sudo) systemctl (start, stop, enable, disable, status) (name of service)

- start: starts a service, but does NOT enable it. Ex: “sudo systemctl start ufw” starts the firewall UFW, but does not make it run again when you reboot the computer.
- stop: stops a service. If service is enabled, it will remain enabled.
- enable: enables a service, making it run on next reboot. It does not start the service unless you type “enable --now” instead of “enable”.
- disable: stops the service from running on next reboot. Will not stop the service unless the --now parameter is passed.
- restart: restart the service

Checking Service Logs:

Basic logs:

“systemctl status {name of service}”: checks to see if a service is currently running. Will display various info about it, if its enabled, etc. It is useful to check if a service is not working correctly, but ONLY contains high level information about the service (about 10 lines).

Detailed logs:

“{sudo if needed} journalctl -u {name of service}”: this pulls DETAILED logs from a service. For example, if you tried to start a service called ssh, but in the ssh config file made a typo, this command will show you that exact typo and any errors or warnings thrown.

Note: To see a list of ALL services running and their basic status, use: “sudo systemctl status”

System vs. User Services

When managing services with systemctl, we only use “sudo” if we are manipulating a service that affects the entire system.

Some examples of sudo services: apparmor (manages what applications can do to computer), ufw (firewall), networkmanager (manages wifi & network for system) Essentially, any service that manages the entire computer is a sudo service.

If the current logged in user logs out, the services that stop are user services (NOT sudo/system services) enabled for that users account only (could also be enabled for other accounts, but it is individually enabled per account).

Examples of non-sudo services (called user services): dunst (notification daemon to deliver any notifications), pulseaudio (audio server that controls audio for your running system. It is a user service because, for example, another user could use a different sound service, such as pipewire. It does not control the entire computer).

PAM Unit

PAM

Pam stands for Pluggable Authentication Modules. Essentially, it concerns things like password length, complexity (special characters, if it can have consecutive numbers or dictionary words), max number of wrong password guesses before the system stops prompting for the password, etc. We will be mainly dealing with one file, “/etc/pam.d/common-password”

Here is an example of this file (on next slide):

```
#
# /etc/pam.d/common-password - password-related modules common to all services
#
# This file is included from other service-specific PAM config files,
# and should contain a list of modules that define the services to be
# used to change user passwords.  The default is pam_unix.

# Explanation of pam_unix options:
# The "yescrypt" option enables
#hashed passwords using the yescrypt algorithm, introduced in Debian
#11.  Without this option, the default is Unix crypt.  Prior releases
#used the option "sha512"; if a shadow password hash will be shared
#between Debian 11 and older releases replace "yescrypt" with "sha512"
#for compatibility .  The "obscure" option replaces the old
#`OBSCURE_CHECKS_ENAB' option in login.defs.  See the pam_unix manpage
#for other options.

# As of pam 1.0.1-6, this file is managed by pam-auth-update by default.
# To take advantage of this, it is recommended that you configure any
# local modules either before or after the default block, and use
# pam-auth-update to manage selection of other modules.  See
# pam-auth-update(8) for details.

# here are the per-package modules (the "Primary" block)
password        requisite                       pam_pwquality.so retry=3
password        [success=2 default=ignore]      pam_unix.so obscure use_authtok try_first_pass yescrypt
password        sufficient                      pam_sss.so use_authtok
# here's the fallback if no module succeeds
password        requisite                       pam_deny.so
# prime the stack with a positive return value if there isn't one already;
# this avoids us returning an error just because nothing sets a success code
# since the modules above will each just jump around
password        required                        pam_permit.so
# and here are more per-package modules (the "Additional" block)
password        optional        pam_gnome_keyring.so
# end of pam-auth-update config
```

Common_password: pwquality

If you will notice, there is a line with “pwquality.so” on it. This stands for password quality. The following settings are recommended best practices (add them to it directly after the text “pwquality.so”, with a space in between. Order doesn’t matter.):

“retry=3”, This dictates how many times a password can be entered incorrectly before the system stops prompting for it.

“minlen=12”, This is a good password minimum length (12 characters)

“dcredit=-1”, This makes it to where the password needs at least 1 numeric digit.

“ucredit=-1”, This makes it to where the password needs at least 1 uppercase letter.

“ocredit=-1”, This makes it to where the password needs at least 1 special character (!, ?, etc)

“lcredit=-1”. This makes it to where the password needs at least 1 lowercase letter.

Common_password: pwhistory

To enforce password history, add a new line under the pwquality line (but ABOVE the pam_unix line) using the same spacing as the pwquality line. It should be “password required pam_pwhistory.so {parameters}”

Recommended parameters should go directly after pwhistory.so, with one space after prehistory.so:

“remember=5” makes the system remember the last 5 passwords you set, and does not allow you to repeat them.

“use_authtok” needs to be added to prevent duplicate password entry.

“enforce_for_root” makes these restrictions apply to the root user as well.

/etc/login.defs

This file also enforces password policy, but enforces password ages and expiration.

The following settings are recommended to be added for security:

“PASS_MAX_DAYS 30”: Number of days before a password expires. When the password expires, the user must set a new one.

“PASS_MIN_DAYS 7”: This is the number of days a user has to wait after changing their password to change it again.

“PASS_WARN_AGE 12”: The number of days before password expiration that the system warns you that it will be expiring.

All things Networking and Remote Basics: Unit

SSH

SSH is a program that allows us to remotely access other systems.

SSH is not limited to Linux; it also can be installed on BSD distributions, MacOS, Windows, Android, even IBM Mainframes.

NOTE: SSH does NOT deliver a graphical session; it remotes into the command line.

This can have security implications: if unsecured, SSH allows remote access to ANY vulnerable machines easily.

Security flaws in SSH can include:

- Improper configuration (root login allowed, insecure SSH protocol, X11 over SSH when not necessary)
- Weak user passwords
- SSH enabled when not being used

/etc/ssh/sshd_config

/etc/ssh/sshd_config is the SSH server configuration file.

NOTE: There is also /etc/ssh/ssh_config This configuration file is for if YOU were using ssh to connect to another computer. This isn't as relevant here, so we will not be going over it right now.

NOTE: We will be going over the basics of SSH configuration for now. In depth config will come later.

SSH hardening parameters have been based off this article:
https://linuxize.com/post/ssh-hardening-best-practices/

/etc/ssh/sshd_config secure configuration

Necessary configuration changes and context behind them:

NOTE: ssh configuration parameters are set as such: “PermitRootLogin no”. One space between the parameter and setting.

- “PermitRootLogin” should be set to “no”. This setting controls if the root user can login to a system via ssh. It is standard security practice to disable this and let users with sudo privileges replace use of the root account. This setting barrs ssh from allowing the root user to log in, it is NOT the same as locking the root account with passwd (both should be done).
-
- “KbdInteractiveAuthentication” should be set to no. This setting allows for authentication prompts besides passwords. It is not necessary for our use, as we will be using passwords to authenticate unless you have been told otherwise (i.e by the systems administrator).
-
- “X11Forwarding” should be set to no. This allows you to get a graphical session over X11 (a display server) with SSH. X11 is being slowly deprecated in favor of the wayland protocol, and unless told by a higher systems administrator, it is not usually necessary nor worth the security risk to have a graphical session over SSH.

/etc/ssh/sshd_config secure configuration (cont.)

- “PermitEmptyPasswords” should be set to no. While we already set a minimum password length in our PAM configuration, this serves as an extra layer to prevent users with unchanged passwords from logging in with no password (which could easily be exploited)
- “LoginGraceTime” should be set to 30. This means that after 30 seconds of not typing a password, the ssh login attempt is killed.
- “MaxAuthTries” should be set to 3. After 3 login authentication attempts (i.e password entries) the ssh connection attempt will be terminated.
- “AllowAgentForwarding” should be set to no. This allows you to ssh into a server, which ssh’s into another server, without you needing to authenticate multiple times. Because we are using password authentication instead of keys, this isn’t as necessary and can present a security risk.
- “AllowTcpForwarding” should be set to no. This setting allows other protocols and connections to be delivered over SSH. Unless necessary by a systems administrator, this should be set to no.

/etc/ssh/sshd_config secure configuration (cont.) (cont.)

- “ClientAliveInterval” should be set to 300 (unit is in seconds). If a ssh connection is inactive (i.e user not typing/interacting with/doing anything) for this many seconds, ssh sends a KeepAlive packet to the inactive machine.
- “ClientAliveCountMax” should be set to 2. After two KeepAlive packets are sent, the ssh connection will be terminated.

For all of these settings, find and change them if they are there, or add them if they are not there.

NOTE: Look for a configuration file in /etc/ssh/sshd_config.d ANY configuration files in here override the master file, so be sure to check files inside that directory for insecure settings and change if needed.

NOTE 2: After any configuration changes, be sure to restart the ssh service with systemctl!

Firewall

What is a firewall?

- When your computer is connected to the internet, it has a public ip address. This IP address, without a firewall, is pingable/reachable by any other person on the internet.
- A firewall can be used to block these incoming connections to your computer, as well as manage incoming or outgoing connections.
- Your computer's IP address has ports, which are used to facilitate specific connections. SSH usually connects on port 22, for example. Https (most websites) are on port 443. Each port can host one connection.
- A firewall manages what traffic is allowed where (for example, incoming ssh connections must be allowed on port 22 so that it can be connected to)

Firewall

What is a firewall? (cont.)

- A good default firewall policy is to allow outgoing connections (i.e your computer tries to connect to something) but block (deny) incoming connections.
- Exceptions to this (like what is needed for ssh) are made in the form of firewall rules.

UFW

- The firewall we will be using is called UFW (stands for uncomplicated firewall)
- UFW should be installed on Linux Mint, but is not installed by default on Debian
- The package name in apt is simply called “ufw”
- You may also find it helpful to install the package “gufw”. This is a graphical user interface for ufw.
- You MUST have ufw configured, especially when managing a server. It is ESSENTIAL for security.

Installing UFW

- Install the package “ufw” if not already installed (and gufw if desired).
- Set a default policy (deny incoming traffic, allow outgoing traffic):
- “sudo ufw default deny incoming”
- “sudo ufw default allow outgoing”

Allow SSH (IF SSH is being used on the system ONLY): “sudo ufw allow ssh” (or, if SSH is on a different port than 22, “sudo ufw allow {port number}/tcp”

Enable the firewall service:

“sudo systemctl enable --now ufw”

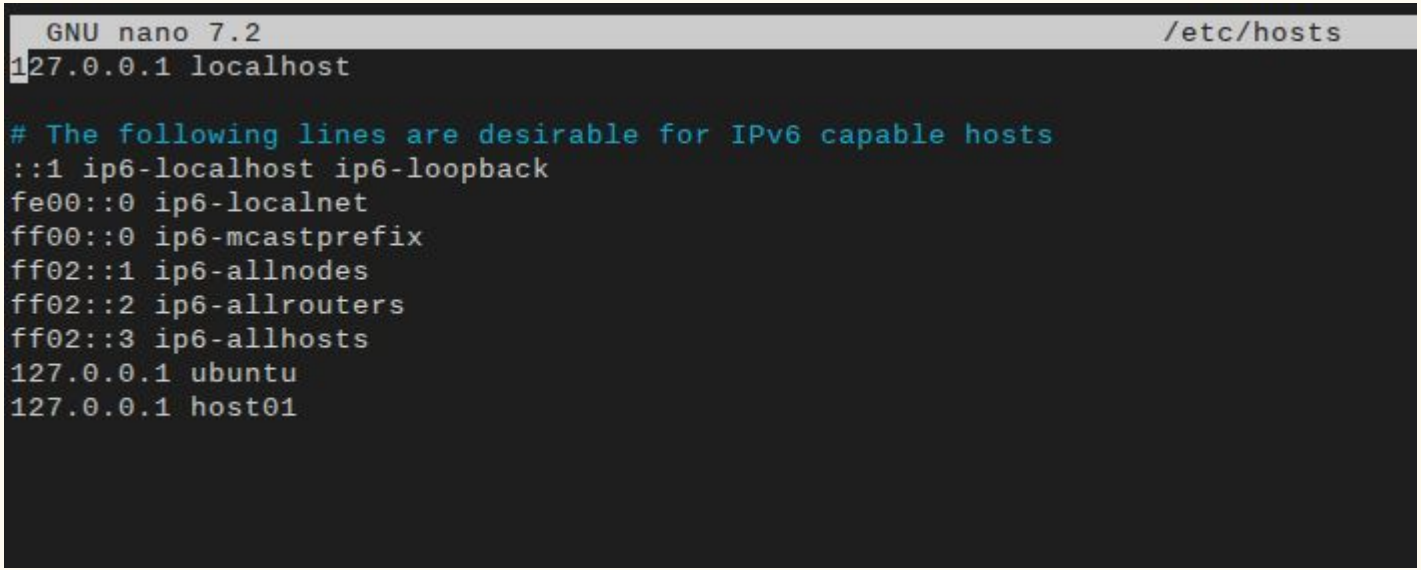
Turn on the firewall:

“sudo ufw enable”

**Follow these steps minus installing it if UFW is already present, they represent a good secure firewall configuration.

File: /etc/hosts

- This file controls local hostnames (i.e mapping them to the default loopback address)
- This resembles a good default hosts file:



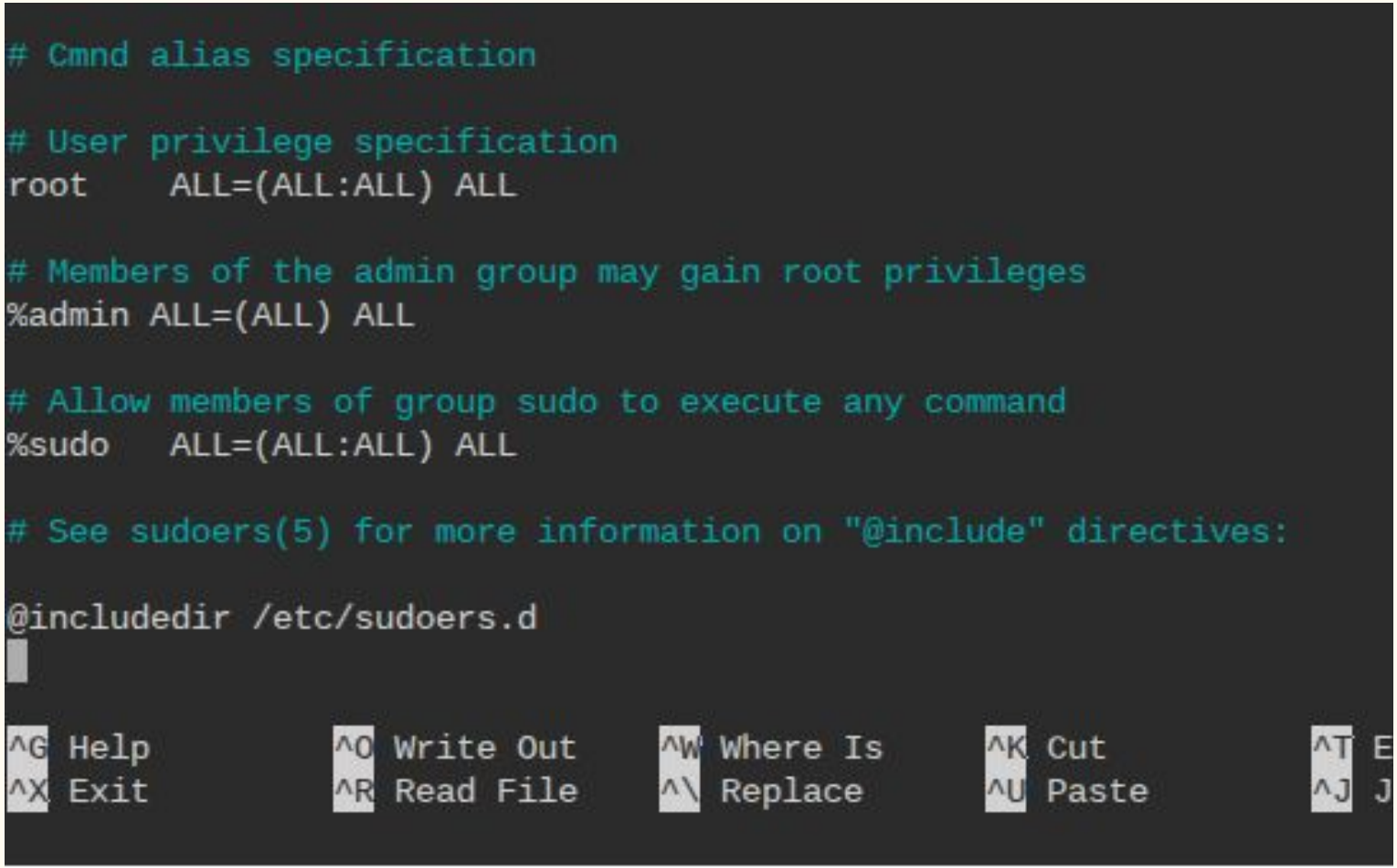
NOTE: Watch out for any external domain names here (ex: google.com), or non local (ff::00, ff::02, 127) IP’s.

Misc Info & Basics Wrap Up (Unit):

Sudoers

- Controls who can use sudo and other sudo settings
- This file controls who can use sudo, and what users and user groups can be granted root privileges with sudo.
- You MUST edit this file with the command “sudo visudo”. This assures the file does not get corrupted.
- When looking at this file, also look inside the directory /etc/sudoers.d/, or any other directory included in the file (will be a line in the file that looks like: include (NAME OF DIRECTORY) for entries that grant unauthorized access (more info on that on next slides).
-

Sudoers


Cmnd alias specification
User privilege specification
root ALL=(ALL:ALL) ALL
Members of the admin group may gain root privileges
%admin ALL=(ALL) ALL
Allow members of group sudo to execute any command
%sudo ALL=(ALL:ALL) ALL
See sudoers(5) for more information on "@include" directives:
@includedir /etc/sudoers.d
^G Help
^O Write Out
^W Where Is
^K Cut
^T E
^X Exit
^R Read File
^\ Replace
^U Paste
^J J

Sudoers

- Allowed group names start with % sign (in last picture, groups sudo and admin are allowed to use sudo
- In last image, root is allowed to use sudo (you should remove that line in /etc/sudoers)
- Make sure only sudo (and possibly admin groups, but that means you need to make sure no unauthorized users are in the admin group) are allowed to use sudo.
- Any files in /etc/sudoers.d/ will act as an extension of the sudoers file. Anything written inside them acts as if it was written in the sudoers file.

Anywhere it says “nopasswd” or “NOPASSWD” or anything along those lines, remove that. Do this same thing if you see the text “!authenticate” (not authenticate).

Apparmor

- A MAC (mandatory access control framework)
- Restricts what programs can do when running on a system
- Make sure the “apparmor” service is enabled
- “sudo systemctl status apparmor” to check if enabled
- If not installed, install the “apparmor” package before enabling

Cron

- Cron jobs allow you to run jobs at specific times (every 5 minutes, 15 minutes after the system boots, etc)
- To list scheduled cron jobs for a specific user, “sudo crontab -u {username} -l”
- To list system wide cron jobs, “cat /etc/crontab”, “cat /etc/cron.d/*”
- Anything that does not say “anacron”

Systemd Timers (alternative to cron)

- These are systemd’s alternative to cron
- To list, “systemctl list-timers --all”